
The Last Percent: Concept Emergence and the Jump from Approximation to Solving in Neural CSPs

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Abstract

Neural solvers for combinatorial optimization often achieve strong approximation ratios while still failing to produce valid solutions. We study this approximation–solving gap through the lens of *learned concepts*: solver-relevant properties encoded in the latent space of a GNN. Using random SAT as a case study, we apply a controlled sequence of modifications to OPTGNN, a Semi-Definite-Programming (SDP)-guided graph neural network. Each modification is inspired by classical heuristic design: (i) a single recurrent message-passing unit run for more iterations; (ii) an explicit rounding component paired with a logit-space loss; and (iii) constraint-level aggregation inspired by factor graphs.

Our representation analysis shows that high approximation ratios arise across all variants, but solving emerges in variants that develop the concept of *confidence*: a signal encoding how likely a variable’s current assignment is to agree with an optimal solution. Models that have solving capacity encode this confidence geometrically, via the classical notion of *support*, and preferentially revise low-confidence variables; approximating models do neither. These results suggest that solving is not a smooth extension of approximation, but a qualitatively distinct capability, and provide concept-level criteria for designing future GNN-based solvers.

1 Introduction

A common recipe for improving neural models is to make them larger, run them longer, or tune the objective: add layers, increase inference iterations, or refine the loss to better match the desired output. In this work, we show that for Graph Neural Networks (GNNs) applied to combinatorial optimization, this intuition can be misleading. Rather than a smooth improvement curve, we find a *singular transition*: models move abruptly from high-quality approximate solutions, often satisfying 99% of the constraints, to fully solving instances, satisfying 100%. This last percentage point is not a marginal gain; it marks a qualitative architectural shift from approximation to exact feasibility.

We identify this transition point as the model’s ability to learn a specific class of solver-relevant properties. In particular, we identify *variable confidence*—a measure of how strongly a variable’s current assignment agrees with an optimal assignment. As it turns out, this concept can be computed locally in some cases, making it feasible for GNNs to learn. This was shown in the pre-ML literature studying random CSPs (Constraint Satisfaction Problems) such as SAT and k -colorability Alon and Kahale [1994], Flaxman [2008]. When this concept is absent, models achieve strong approximation ratios but fail to solve. When it emerges, the GNN architecture exhibits solving capacities.

We demonstrate this phenomenon on two canonical constraint satisfaction problems: *Boolean Satisfiability* (SAT) and a hypergraph variant of Max-Cut, namely *hypergraph 2-coloring*, also known as *NAE-3SAT*. Our starting point is OPTGNN Yau et al. [2024], an acclaimed general-purpose GNN

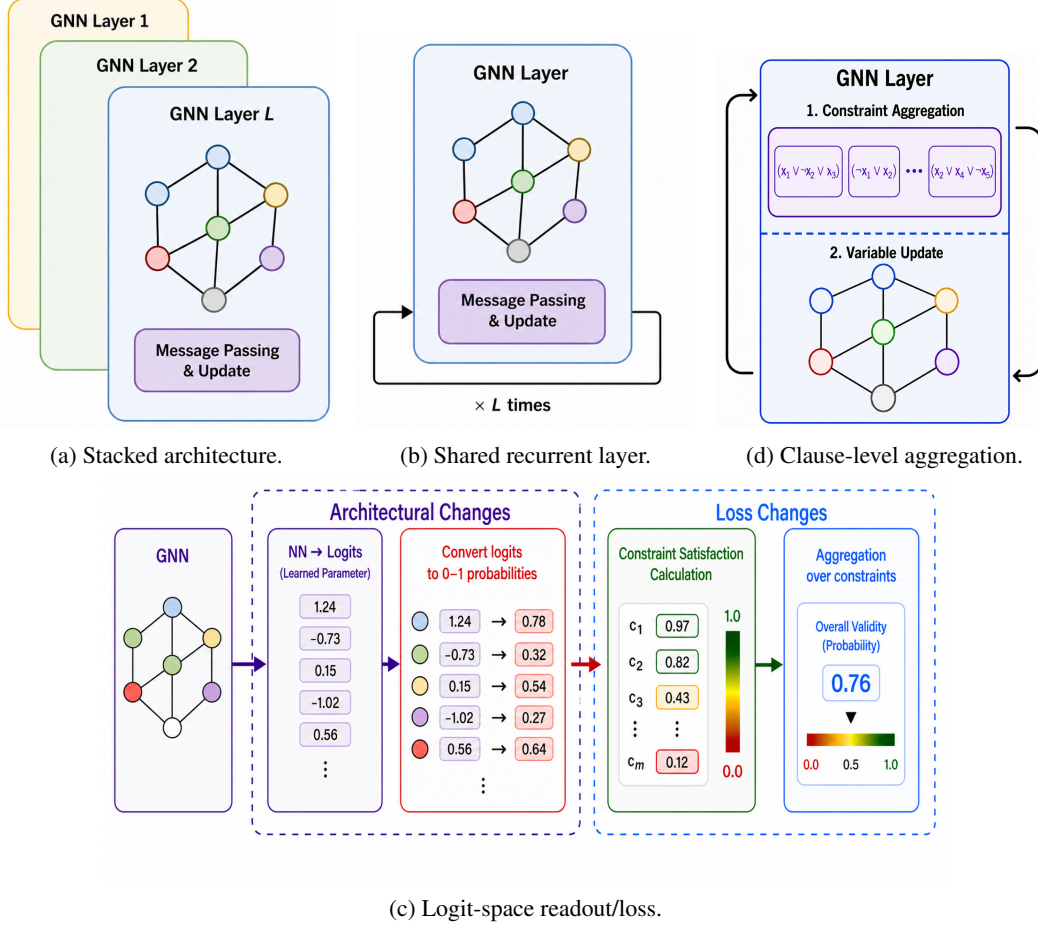


Figure 1: Controlled OPTGNN variants and their architectural modifications. Panels (a)–(c) show the three incremental components studied in this work: (a) stacked layer-specific GNN updates, (b) a shared recurrent GNN layer applied for L iterations, and (c) a logit-space readout/loss that maps variable logits to probabilities, evaluates clause validity, and aggregates the resulting constraint-level signal. Panel (d) shows the clause-level aggregation variant, which explicitly aggregates constraint representations before feeding the result back into the variable update. Together, these panels define the progression from stacked message passing, to recurrent refinement, to logit-space supervision, and finally to explicit clause-level aggregation.

framework for unsupervised combinatorial optimization, derived from Semi-Definite Programming (SDP)-based continuous relaxations. These two settings align with the SAT and Max-Cut problems studied in OPTGNN, allowing us to examine the approximation-to-solving transition within the same relaxation-based framework.

We introduce a sequence of controlled modifications inspired by classical heuristic design principles, illustrated in Figure 1. Starting from the original model, we consider three composable changes: (1) replacing the fixed multi-layer update sequence with a single recurrent message-passing layer run for more iterations, analogous to running an iterative heuristic longer; (2) introducing a learned *rounding hyperplane*, which projects the continuous embeddings toward a one-dimensional assignment coordinate before the loss is evaluated, mimicking the rounding step that converts an SDP solution into a discrete assignment; and (3) augmenting the architecture with explicit constraint-level aggregation through a bipartite variable–constraint structure, aligned with the classical factor-graph view of constraint systems Pearl [1988]. These modifications allow us to isolate which ingredients merely improve approximation quality and which are necessary for the transition to solving. Crucially, while each component contributes to performance, combining all components yields the strongest and most robust singular transition from near-feasibility to exact feasibility.

This perspective suggests a shift in how progress in neural combinatorial optimization should be evaluated. Rather than comparing architectures solely by approximation ratios or benchmark performance, we argue that models should be compared through the *concepts they learn*. This provides a unified lens for understanding when and why a model transitions from approximation to solving, and offers a principled direction for designing more effective neural solvers.

We use two simple insights to formalize this distinction.

Insight 1: The logit loss exposes a confidence signal. For a SAT clause C , let $x_i \in [0, 1]$ denote the relaxed truth value of variable i . The relaxed clause-unsatisfaction loss is

$$u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x) = \prod_{i \in C^+} (1 - x_i) \prod_{i \in C^-} x_i.$$

This loss is a product of false-literal indicators. Therefore, for near-discrete assignments, it induces a strict ordering over local clause patterns:

$$u_C(TTT) < u_C(TTF) < u_C(TFF) < u_C(FFF).$$

Thus, among satisfied clauses, TFF is closest to violation: the clause is satisfied, but only one literal prevents it from becoming false. Unlike FFF , which gives a correction signal, TFF gives a confidence signal by identifying the literal that preserves satisfaction. Variables that participate in many such clauses are therefore locally identifiable as confidence-critical variables. We formalize this in Appendix A, Insight 1.

Insight 2: the SDP loss mixes confidence with high-dimensional geometry. Let V denote the high-dimensional embedding matrix used by the SDP-relaxation OPTGNN. The clause objective in Yau et al. [2024] is

$$\Phi_C(V) = \frac{1}{8} (7 + a_i(V) + a_j(V) + a_k(V) - b_{ij}(V) - b_{ik}(V) - b_{jk}(V) + c_{ijk}(V)),$$

where the linear terms a_i, a_j, a_k are inner products between variable embeddings and a fixed reference vector v_0 , while the remaining terms are inner products among the variable embeddings themselves.

Thus, while the logit loss separates patterns such as TFF at the level of relaxed clause values, the SDP objective expresses the same distinction through high-dimensional vector moments. These inner-product terms vary across clauses and embeddings, introducing geometric noise that can obscure the confidence signal. We surmise that the logit augmentation reduces this noise by learning a single rounding direction, making the confidence signal easier to isolate. We formalize this intuition in Appendix A, Insight 2.

Our contributions are as follows:

- We expose a sharp approximation–solving gap in relaxation-based GNNs through a controlled sequence of OPTGNN variants.
- We show that closing this gap is associated with the model learning a confidence signal, instantiated in SAT as the classical notion of *support*.
- We demonstrate that standard architectural improvements—more iterations, learned rounding, or modified losses—can improve approximation but do not by themselves reliably induce solving.
- We identify a concrete architectural ingredient, explicit constraint-level aggregation, that enables more coherent confidence formation and yields the strongest transition to solving.
- We outline a broader design principle for neural combinatorial optimization: architectures should not only optimize relaxed objectives, but explicitly support the emergence of solver-relevant concepts.

2 Background and Related Work

Constraint systems, assignments, and confidence. Yau et al. [2024] studies GNNs for discrete constraint systems in which the output is an assignment satisfying local constraints. We focus on two such settings: SAT and NAE-SAT. NAE-SAT can be viewed as a hypergraph variant of Max-Cut, expressed in SAT terminology: each clause is satisfied only if it contains both a true and a false literal.

Throughout, we use *constraint* as the generic term and *clause* when referring specifically to SAT-type formulas Cook [1971]. Given a formula F and an assignment ϕ , the *support* of a variable x in SAT is the number of clauses uniquely satisfied by x :

$$\text{support}_\phi(x) = |\{C \in F : C \text{ is satisfied under } \phi \text{ only by } x\}|. \quad (1)$$

For NAE-SAT, we use the analogous definition: x supports a clause if its literal is the “odd one out” under ϕ , i.e., the only true literal or the only false literal in the clause. Equivalently, flipping x would make all literals in that clause equal and would violate the NAE constraint.

Support is a classical solver-relevant quantity. Survey Propagation uses related signals to identify biased variables whose assignments are highly constrained Mézard and Zecchina [2002], Achlioptas and Ricci-Tersenghi [2006]; backbone analyses show that highly constrained variables often take the same value across satisfying assignments Nudelman et al. [2004], Achlioptas and Coja-Oghlan [2008]; and WalkSAT-style heuristics implicitly prefer flipping low-support variables to escape local minima Lincoln and Yedidia [2020]. In all cases, support acts as a confidence signal: it measures how strongly the current assignment depends on a variable.

Operational definition of a learned concept. In this paper, a *concept* is not used informally. We say that a GNN has learned a concept $g_\phi(v)$ if that property is reliably decodable from the latent embedding $h_v^{(t)}$ by a simple probe, typically a linear map, across held-out instances:

$$\widehat{g}_\phi(v) = w^\top h_v^{(t)} + b. \quad (2)$$

Thus, the insight that a model learns confidence is falsifiable: it fails if support, or the relevant confidence quantity, cannot be predicted from the embeddings above the stated probe baseline on unseen instances. This operationalization allows us to compare model variants by both performance and the extent to which their latent spaces encode solver-relevant confidence.

Approximation vs. solving. Approximation and solving are related but distinct goals. In random 3-SAT, a uniformly random assignment already satisfies each clause with probability $7/8$, so strong approximation is achievable from the outset. Closing the remaining gap to 100%, however, is qualitatively harder: Håstad’s inapproximability result shows that improving beyond the $7/8$ threshold is NP-hard in the worst case Håstad [2001]. Moreover, for random SAT above certain densities, assignments satisfying most clauses may still be far in Hamming distance from any satisfying assignment, so repairing the final violations can require coordinated changes across many variables Achlioptas and Coja-Oghlan [2008]. Continuous relaxation-based objectives amplify this gap: they reward incremental score improvements without enforcing discrete feasibility, allowing high objective values while remaining far from a valid solution.

Related work: GNNs and SDP-based neural solvers. GNNs update variable representations by repeatedly aggregating information from neighboring variables or constraints Gilmer [2017], Zhou et al. [2020]. This local message-passing structure is well suited to combinatorial problems such as SAT and graph coloring; our focus is what happens when it is paired with a relaxation objective. OPTGNN Yau et al. [2024], amongst others Tönshoff et al. [2021], is representative of this setting: it combines iterative graph-based updates with an SDP-inspired objective, refining variable representations using both relational structure and relaxation gradients. Related neural solvers fall into two broad groups. Direct neural solvers such as NEUROSAT Selsam et al. [2019] and GNN-GCP Lemos et al. [2019] show that message passing can encode rich combinatorial structure, but they are not tied to the same optimize-then-round relaxation pipeline. Unsupervised relaxation-based solvers Tönshoff et al. [2021], Yau et al. [2024], by contrast, emphasize scalability and generality across problem classes, but sharpen the question of what additional structure is needed to move from strong approximation to actual solving.

Recent interpretability work shows that confidence-related concepts such as *support* or *degree* can appear in neural solvers Shoham et al. [2024, 2026], but it remains unclear when they form, why some models acquire them and others do not, and how they translate into exact solving. Our work addresses this gap by linking objective design, architecture, representation, and solving behavior.

3 Methodology

We study the transition from approximation to solving through a controlled sequence of modifications to an SDP-inspired neural solver. Figure 1 summarizes the four variants. OPTGNN is the original relaxation-driven model; OPTGNN-IR replaces the original multi-layer update sequence with a single recurrent update map applied over multiple iterations; OPTGNN-LOGIT adds a fully connected layer ($d \rightarrow 1$) and passes it to a sigmoid that ‘rounds’ the high-dimensional latent space to the interval $[0,1]$, intuitively translating the embedding of variable x_i to the probability that x_i takes the value True (like in Belief Propagation). Additionally, in OPTGNN-LOGIT, we replace the SDP-style training objective with the logit-space clause-unsatisfaction loss in Eq. (4), while keeping the gradient-based update dynamics unchanged. Finally, OPTGNN-CLAUSE adds explicit clause-level aggregation and is trained with the same logit-space objective. This progression lets us isolate the roles of recurrence, objective design, and architectural alignment with the SAT factor graph.

Base model. Our starting point is OPTGNN Yau et al. [2024], a graph neural architecture coupled to a continuous SDP-inspired relaxation. Given a problem instance, the model maintains a vector representation for each variable, updates these representations using gradients of the relaxation objective, and obtains the final assignment by thresholding the final variable states:

$$v_{i+1} = \text{Norm}(M_i(v_i, \nabla_i \text{Norm}(L(v_i)))) , \quad \text{out} = \text{sign}(v_{i+1} \cdot \text{random_vector}). \quad (3)$$

Here, L is the SDP-based objective, M_i is the learned update map at iteration i , and $\text{Norm}(\cdot)$ stabilizes the dynamics. In the original OPTGNN, this corresponds to an untied sequence of update maps $M_1, \dots, M_{32}$; preliminary experiments showed that using deeper sequences (e.g. $M_1, \dots, M_{100}$), suffered from vanishing gradients leading to worse results. Following Yau et al. [2024], for each instance we sample a single random projection vector and use it for all variables when producing the final thresholded assignment; this vector is fixed throughout the inference run.

Controlled modifications. Starting from OPTGNN, we study three cumulative modifications:

- **Iterative refinement (OPTGNN-IR):** we replace the original sequence of step-specific maps $M_1, \dots, M_{32}$ with a single shared recurrent map M , which is applied for 32 iterations during training, and up to 500 in inference. This isolates the effect of repeated computation with tied parameters.
- **Logit-space loss (OPTGNN-LOGIT):** we map each variable state v_i to a binary logit x_i and replace the SDP objective with an aggregate of relaxed clause-unsatisfaction terms. In what follows C^+ and C^- denote the sets of positive and negative literals in clause C , respectively. The term $u_C(x)$ measures the degree to which clause C is unsatisfied: when assignments are discrete $x_i \in \{0, 1\}$, we have $u_C(x) = 1$ if and only if C is unsatisfied:

$$\begin{aligned} u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x) &= \prod_{i \in C^+} (1 - x_i) \prod_{i \in C^-} x_i, & u_C^{\text{NAE}}(x) &= u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x) + u_C^{\text{SAT}}(1 - x), \\ \mathcal{L}_{\text{logit}}^{\text{SAT}}(x) &= \sum_{C \in F} u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x), & \mathcal{L}_{\text{logit}}^{\text{NAE}}(x) &= \sum_{C \in F} u_C^{\text{NAE}}(x). \end{aligned} \quad (4)$$

- **Constraint-level aggregation (OPTGNN-CLAUSE):** we introduce clause representations $c_j = \text{Norm}\left(M'\left(\sum_{v_i \in C_j} v_i\right)\right)$, and $v_{i+1} = \text{Norm}(M(v_i, \nabla_i, \sum_{C_j \ni v_i} c_j))$ and feed them back to variables through the update map together with the gradient signal. This gives the model direct access to joint constraint structure, e.g., which variables uniquely sustain satisfied clauses.

Evaluation. For each model we report two primary metrics. The *approximation ratio* is the fraction of clauses satisfied by the predicted assignment, averaged over instances; a ratio of 1 corresponds to exact solving. The *solving rate* is the fraction of instances for which the predicted assignment satisfies all clauses. These two metrics jointly characterize the approximation–solving gap: a model may achieve a high approximation ratio while its solving rate remains low.

We complement these with a Hamming-distance analysis, measuring how far a high-approximation failed assignment is from a satisfying solution. For each failed instance, we compute the normalized distance to the nearest satisfying assignment found by exhaustive search. Since this is substantially more expensive than satisfiability checking, we use smaller instances ($n = 250$, 100 failed instances at $c = 3.7$); the main benchmark uses $n = 1000$.

Data and evaluation protocol. For SAT, we follow the data generation procedure of Yau et al. [2024]. Random 3-SAT instances are generated by sampling $m = cn$ clauses uniformly, each containing three randomly selected variables with independently sampled literal signs. Training uses 2K instances with $n = 100$ variables and clause density $c \sim \mathcal{U}[3.5, 3.9]$, near the satisfiability phase transition at $c \approx 4.26$ Achlioptas et al. [2005], Friedgut et al. [1999]. Evaluation uses larger random instances with $n = 1000$ across clause densities $c \in \{0.5, 1.0, 2.0, 2.5, 3.0, 3.5, 3.7, 3.9, 4.1, 4.2, 4.3\}$.

For NAE-SAT, we generate random instances analogously, but evaluate clauses under the not-all-equal constraint. Training uses random instances with $n = 100$ and clause density $c \in [0.5, 1.0, 1.5, 1.8, 2.0, 2.1, 2.5]$, near the NAE-SAT phase transition at $c \approx 2.11$ Achlioptas et al. [2001]. Evaluation uses larger random instances generated analogously to the SAT setting.

As c increases, the geometry of the solution space undergoes structural transitions that make instances progressively harder: the solution space fragments from a single connected cluster into exponentially many well-separated clusters, local search becomes trapped, and eventually satisfying assignments cease to exist beyond the threshold Mézard and Zecchina [2002], Mertens et al. [2006], Achlioptas and Coja-Oghlan [2008], Braunstein et al. [2005], Seitz et al. [2005], Braunstein et al. [2006].

Representation analysis. Let $\mathbf{E} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times d}$ denote the matrix of final variable embeddings. The final assignment is extracted from the model output itself: for OPTGNN and OPTGNN-IR, we use the sign of the randomized projection, while for OPTGNN-LOGIT and OPTGNN-CLAUSE, we threshold the sigmoid output at 0.5. Support, defined in Section 2, is then computed for each variable under this induced assignment.

To evaluate how directly support is encoded in the learned representations, we test whether it is linearly decodable from the embedding space. Specifically, for each variable we use its final embedding vector $\mathbf{E}_i \in \mathbb{R}^d$ as input to a linear SVM and train classifiers to separate adjacent support levels (0, 1), (1, 2), and (2, 3). We report the mean 5-fold Macro-F1 score across these adjacent pairs. Importantly, this probe is a test of simple linear accessibility: weak capacity to separate support levels does not imply that support is absent from the representation, but rather that it is not encoded in an easily linearly decodable form.

To measure whether the model *uses* support during inference, to prefer flipping low-support variables, we compute support-conditioned flip probabilities. At each iteration, we extract the Boolean assignment from the model output and record whether each variable changes value between consecutive iterations. For each support level s , we normalize by the number of variables with that support: $p_{\text{flip}}(s) = \frac{\# \text{ flipped variables with support } s}{\# \text{ variables with support } s}$. We then average these probabilities over iterations and instances, ensuring that frequent support levels do not dominate rarer ones.

4 Results

We modify the released Yau et al. [2024] implementation as described in Section 3, keeping all other settings unchanged. Inference uses 32 iterations for OPTGNN and 100 for the other variants, with hidden dimension 32 and final sign decoding. Experiments used Python 3.11 and PyTorch on an AMD Ryzen 9 5950X workstation with 32 GB RAM and an NVIDIA RTX 3080. Each model was trained and evaluated over 10 independent runs, each taking at most 40 minutes; across runs, reported metrics varied by standard deviation at most 0.02.

From approximation to solving. Table 1 (and Table 4 in the Appendix) reveals a clear progression across model variants as clause density increases. In the sparse regime ($c \leq 1$), all variants achieve high solving rates, with all augmented variants solving every instance exactly and the base OPTGNN solving most instances. As density grows into the moderate range ($1 < c \leq 3$), the base OPTGNN collapses to zero solving rate while maintaining a high approximation ratio around 0.98–0.99, exposing the approximation–solving gap. Iterative refinement alone does not close this gap: OPTGNN-IR

solves all sparse instances but also collapses once density increases. The logit-space loss substantially improves solving, with OPTGNN-LOGIT solving all instances up to $c \leq 2.5$ and retaining partial solving capacity at $c = 3.0$ and $c = 3.5$, before collapsing at higher densities. The full model, OPTGNN-CLAUSE, achieves the strongest performance, solving all instances up to $c = 3.0$ and maintaining non-trivial solving rates through $c = 4.1$, including $c = 3.9$ —the density at which NEUROSAT, a supervised GNN, is reported to fail Selsam et al. [2019], Shoham et al. [2024]. Crucially, approximation ratios remain uniformly high (≥ 0.97) across all variants and densities, confirming that the gains are in solving capacity rather than approximation quality.

Table 1: SAT results on random SAT test instances for different c values with $n = 1000$, using 100 independently generated instances per density. Each cell reports solving rate | approximation. The standard deviation across test instances was below 0.01 in all reported settings and is therefore omitted for readability. Approximation remains high across variants, while solving improves sharply only after the logit-space loss and clause-level aggregation.

Model	0.5 – 1.0	2.0 – 2.5	3.0	3.5	3.7	3.9	≥ 4.1
OPTGNN	.92 .99	.00 .99	.00 .98	.00 .98	.00 .98	.00 .97	.00 .97
OPTGNN-IR	1.0 1.0	.00 .99	.00 .98	.00 .98	.00 .98	.00 .98	.00 .98
OPTGNN-LOGIT	1.0 1.0	1.0 1.0	.83 .99	.09 .99	.00 .99	.00 .99	.00 .99
OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.0 1.0	1.0 1.0	1.0 1.0	.93 .99	.64 .99	.22 .99	.01 .99

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High approximation need not imply closeness to a solution. On failed random SAT instances with $n = 250$ and $c = 3.7$, the baseline reaches about 0.98 approximation but remains roughly 10% away, in normalized Hamming distance, from the closest satisfying assignment found by exhaustive exact search. Thus, high objective value does not mean the model is a few flips from feasibility; the remaining gap can require coordinated changes across many variables.

Representation: emergence of confidence. We next examine whether the performance transition corresponds to a change in the variable representations. For each model, we analyze the final variable embeddings and group variables by support, our SAT-specific measure of confidence. The final assignment is extracted from the model output in the usual way: by taking the sign of the continuous prediction for the SDP-style variants, and by thresholding the sigmoid/logit prediction for the logit-based variants. We then use PCA for visualization. Across all variants, PC1 separates the two Boolean sides of the assignment: variables on one side correspond to one truth value, and those on the other to the opposite. Thus, all variants learn a coarse assignment concept. The key question is whether they also organize *confidence*: whether variables with different support levels become geometrically distinguishable in the learned representation space.

Figure 2 and Table 2 show this progression. The table quantifies support organization by training linear SVMs to separate adjacent support levels (0, 1), (1, 2), and (2, 3) in the learned representation space, using 5-fold cross-validation per instance. We report Macro-F1 because adjacent support classes are imbalanced, especially in sparse regimes.

In SAT, for a fixed variable in a 3-literal clause, exactly one of the $2^3 = 8$ local truth assignments makes that variable the unique satisfying literal. Since $m = cn$ clauses contain $3m$ literal occurrences, each variable appears in $3c$ clauses on average. The expected number of support clauses per variable is therefore $3c/8$. This gives a simple regime distinction: for $c < 8/3 \approx 2.67$, the expected support is below 1, so the signal is sparse; for larger c , support becomes a more frequently expressed property that can organize the learned representations.

For NAE-SAT, the analogous support event is that the variable is the “odd one out” in its clause: its literal is the only true literal or the only false literal. For a fixed variable in a 3-literal clause, this occurs in two of the $2^3 = 8$ local truth assignments. Thus, the expected NAE-support per variable is $3c \cdot 2/8 = 3c/4$, crossing 1 already at $c = 4/3$. Hence, support is expected to appear at lower densities in NAE-SAT than in SAT.

The empirical ordering in Table 2 and Table 3 matches this prediction for SAT. At low densities, all models show weak support structure. OPTGNN and OPTGNN-IR remain near chance across all densities, indicating that iterative refinement alone does not organize support. In contrast, OPTGNN-

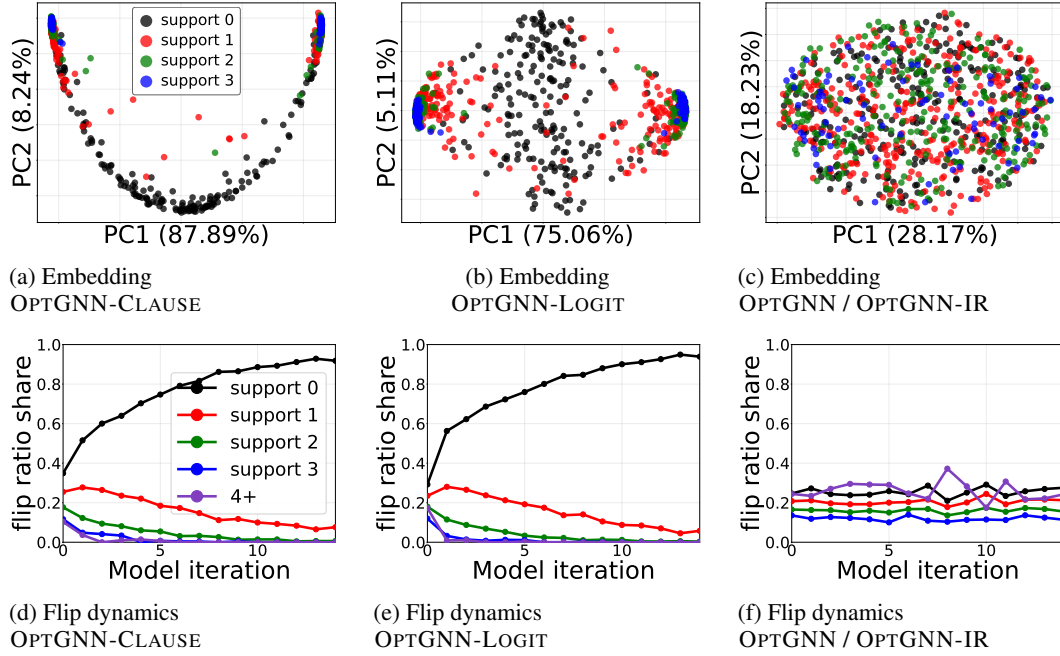


Figure 2: Representation and dynamics across model variants on $n = 1000$, $c = 3.7$ SAT instances. Top row: PCA projections of final variable embeddings colored by support; PC1/PC2 labels include explained variance. Bottom row: support-conditioned flip dynamics, averaged over 100 instances. OPTGNN and OPTGNN-IR weakly represent support and still flip high-support variables. OPTGNN-LOGIT and OPTGNN-CLAUSE show similar support-guided flip dynamics, but OPTGNN-CLAUSE organizes support more clearly in embedding space.

Table 2: SVM separability of support representations across model variants and clause-density regimes. For each $n = 1000$ SAT instance and each valid adjacent support pair (0, 1), (1, 2), and (2, 3), we train a linear SVM using 5-fold cross-validation in the learned representation space. Each cell reports Macro-F1 $\pm$ standard deviation, averaged over the clause densities in the corresponding regime. Within each density, Macro-F1 is first averaged over folds and then over instances, and the standard deviation is computed across instances. We report Macro-F1 rather than accuracy because adjacent support levels are often imbalanced. Higher values indicate clearer geometric organization by support. Greyed cells indicate regimes where the expected support size is less than 1.

Pair	Model	$c = 0.5-1.0$	$c = 2.0-2.5$	$c = 3.0-3.5$	$c = 3.7-4.3$
(0, 1)	OPTGNN	.46 $\pm$.02	.50 $\pm$.02	.50 $\pm$.03	.49 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-IR	.48 $\pm$.02	.51 $\pm$.02	.50 $\pm$.03	.50 $\pm$.02
	OPTGNN-LOGIT	.71 $\pm$.04	.78 $\pm$.02	.74 $\pm$.02	.68 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	.84$\pm$.03	.88$\pm$.01	.92$\pm$.01	.93$\pm$.01
(1, 2)	OPTGNN	.46 $\pm$.05	.47 $\pm$.03	.49 $\pm$.03	.49 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-IR	.45 $\pm$.02	.48 $\pm$.03	.50 $\pm$.03	.50 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-LOGIT	.53 $\pm$.05	.59 $\pm$.03	.65 $\pm$.03	.68 $\pm$.02
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	.54 $\pm$.03	.72 $\pm$.02	.81 $\pm$.02	.87 $\pm$.02
(2, 3)	OPTGNN	.42 $\pm$.04	.47 $\pm$.05	.48 $\pm$.04	.48 $\pm$.04
	OPTGNN-IR	.54 $\pm$.07	.46 $\pm$.05	.47 $\pm$.04	.48 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-LOGIT	.55 $\pm$.08	.52 $\pm$.03	.57 $\pm$.03	.60 $\pm$.03
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	.55 $\pm$.04	.59 $\pm$.05	.70 $\pm$.03	.77 $\pm$.03

LOGIT shows a clear rise in adjacent-support separability, and OPTGNN-CLAUSE improves further and is consistently strongest. The corresponding NAE-SAT results in Table 3 show the same qualitative pattern, with support structure appearing at lower densities, consistent with the higher expected support rate in NAE-SAT. Figure 2 complements Table 2 by visualizing how support is encoded along PC1: in the variants that solve, higher PC1 values typically correspond to higher support, while in the variants that do not, no such alignment is visible.

Dynamics: using confidence. Representation alone is not enough; the model must also use the concept during inference. In SAT, we measure this through support-conditioned flip dynamics: we track which variables flip across iterations as a function of their support. The expected behavior is simple: low-support variables should be revised first, because changing them disrupts few satisfied clauses, whereas high-support variables should be preserved because they uniquely sustain many constraints. This mirrors local-search heuristics such as WalkSAT, which revise unstable variables while avoiding damage to stable parts of the assignment Selman et al. [1993], Hoos and Stützle [2000], Semerjian and Monasson [2003]. It is also consistent with Shoham et al. [2024], where support was identified as the guiding motif behind successful neural SAT solving.

The flip dynamics in Figure 2 follow the same broad progression as the representation analysis, and the same qualitative behavior is observed across the evaluated c values. OPTGNN and OPTGNN-IR behave similarly: both continue to flip high-support variables with relatively high probability, indicating that neither model reliably uses support to protect confident parts of the assignment. Thus, recurrence alone does not fully utilize support, either as a representation-level confidence signal or as a guide for selective refinement. By contrast, OPTGNN-LOGIT and OPTGNN-CLAUSE both exhibit the desired support-guided dynamics: flips are concentrated on low-support variables, while high-support variables are largely preserved. Their main difference is representational rather than dynamical. As shown in Figure 2 and Table 2, OPTGNN-CLAUSE makes support more clearly accessible in the embedding space, whereas OPTGNN-LOGIT uses a similar support-guided flipping pattern but with weaker geometric organization of the support levels. Similarly, Table 3 in the Appendix reports the corresponding SVM separability results for NAE-SAT.

5 Discussion

Our results show that the transition from approximation to solving coincides with a qualitative change in the GNN’s latent representation. Across the controlled OPTGNN variants, strong approximation appears early, but reliable solving emerges only when the model learns a coherent confidence signal, instantiated in SAT as *support*. This suggests that solving is not merely better relaxed optimization, but depends on solver-relevant concepts.

Importantly, confidence is not unique to SAT. An analogous notion appears in graph coloring, where the confidence of a vertex assignment can be captured by its minimum degree into each of the other color classes, a quantity closely related to the structural conditions used in classical coloring algorithms such as Alon–Kahale Alon and Kahale [1994]. This points to a broader hypothesis: many neural solvers may succeed precisely when they learn problem-specific notions of confidence that guide which variables should remain fixed and which should be revised.

Several directions remain open. OPTGNN also studies problems such as Vertex Cover, which differ from the cut-based or partition-based CSPs considered here. In Vertex Cover, the solution is defined by membership in a selected set rather than by assigning variables to competing partitions, and it is unclear what combinatorial property should play the role of confidence. Identifying the learned concepts in such settings is an important direction for future work. A related question is how to extend this view to pure optimization problems, such as Max-Cut, where there is generally no exact satisfying assignment to serve as a target solution.

Our study also has limitations. First, we focus primarily on random instances, where density provides a clean control of difficulty; understanding whether the same concepts emerge on industrial, structured, or benchmark SAT distributions remains open. Second, our analysis is restricted to a small family of GNN architectures derived from OPTGNN; broader architectural classes may learn different concepts or encode confidence in different ways. Third, while our representation analysis reveals strong correlations between confidence formation and solving, fully characterizing the causal mechanisms that force such concepts to emerge remains an important theoretical challenge.

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417 A Support as a signal

418 A.1 Support induces stabilization through the loss gradient

419 **Insight 1** (The SAT loss induces a strict ordering of relaxed clause patterns). *Consider the relaxed*
420 *SAT clause-unsatisfaction loss*

$$u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x) = \prod_{i \in C^+} (1 - x_i) \prod_{i \in C^-} x_i.$$

421 *For an ϵ -relaxed Boolean assignment, where each true literal has false-indicator ϵ and each false*
422 *literal has false-indicator $1 - \epsilon$, with $0 < \epsilon < 1/2$, the clause patterns satisfy*

$$u_C(TTT) < u_C(TTF) < u_C(TFF) < u_C(FFF).$$

423 *Thus, among satisfied clauses, uniquely satisfied clauses are assigned the largest relaxed unsatis-*
424 *faction value. This makes variables that uniquely satisfy many clauses locally distinguishable as*
425 *confidence-critical variables.*

426 *Proof.* For a positive literal $i \in C^+$, the literal is false when $x_i = 0$, so its relaxed false-indicator is
 427 $1 - x_i$. For a negative literal $i \in C^-$, the literal $\neg x_i$ is false when $x_i = 1$, so its relaxed false-indicator
 428 is x_i . Therefore,

$$u_C^{\text{SAT}}(x) = \prod_{i \in C^+} (1 - x_i) \prod_{i \in C^-} x_i.$$

429 Under an ϵ -relaxed Boolean assignment, every true literal has false-indicator ϵ , and every false literal
 430 has false-indicator $1 - \epsilon$, regardless of whether the literal is positive or negated. Hence, for a 3-literal
 431 clause,

$$u_C(TTT) = \epsilon^3, \quad u_C(TTF) = \epsilon^2(1-\epsilon), \quad u_C(TFF) = \epsilon(1-\epsilon)^2, \quad u_C(FFF) = (1-\epsilon)^3.$$

432 Since $0 < \epsilon < 1/2$, we have $\epsilon < 1 - \epsilon$. Therefore,

$$\epsilon^3 < \epsilon^2(1 - \epsilon) < \epsilon(1 - \epsilon)^2 < (1 - \epsilon)^3,$$

433 and so

$$u_C(TTT) < u_C(TTF) < u_C(TFF) < u_C(FFF).$$

434 Thus, among satisfied clauses, the uniquely satisfied pattern TFF is closest to violation under
 435 the relaxed loss. Aggregated over clauses, variables that uniquely satisfy many clauses repeatedly
 436 participate in these high-risk satisfied clauses, providing a local confidence signal.

437 Moreover, this high-risk status has a stabilizing derivative. In the positive case, $TFF = (1 - \epsilon, \epsilon, \epsilon)$
 438 gives

$$\frac{\partial u_C}{\partial x_T} = -(1 - \epsilon)^2,$$

439 so gradient descent increases the unique true literal and moves the clause away from the violated
 440 FFF pattern. Thus, TFF is not only closest to violation in value; it also produces a direct local
 441 push preserving the literal that prevents violation.

442 □

443 **Insight 2** (The SDP loss mixes support with vector-moment noise). *The SDP-style clause objective*
 444 *does not expose support as a clean pattern-level signal. Its value is determined by continuous*
 445 *inner-product moments of the lifted vector solution, not only by the rounded Boolean assignment.*
 446 *Consequently, two rounded patterns such as TFF and TTF need not obey a universal SDP-value*
 447 *ordering. Thus, any support-related signal in the SDP loss is mixed with geometry-dependent*
 448 *variation, making it harder for the model to isolate and use.*

449 *Proof.* Consider the SDP-style clause contribution

$$\begin{aligned} \Phi_C(V) = \frac{1}{8} & \left(7 - \tau_i \tau_j \tau_k \frac{1}{3} [\langle v_i, v_{jk} \rangle + \langle v_j, v_{ik} \rangle + \langle v_k, v_{ij} \rangle] \right. \\ & - \tau_i \tau_j \frac{1}{2} [\langle v_i, v_j \rangle + \langle v_{ij}, v_\emptyset \rangle] - \tau_i \tau_k \frac{1}{2} [\langle v_i, v_k \rangle + \langle v_{ik}, v_\emptyset \rangle] \\ & \left. - \tau_j \tau_k \frac{1}{2} [\langle v_j, v_k \rangle + \langle v_{jk}, v_\emptyset \rangle] - \tau_i \langle v_i, v_\emptyset \rangle - \tau_j \langle v_j, v_\emptyset \rangle - \tau_k \langle v_k, v_\emptyset \rangle \right). \end{aligned} \quad (5)$$

450 Here, $\tau_i, \tau_j, \tau_k \in \{-1, +1\}$ encode the signs of the literals in clause C . The vector v_i is the SDP
 451 vector associated with variable x_i , while v_{ij}, v_{ik} , and v_{jk} are lifted SDP vectors associated with the
 452 corresponding variable pairs. The vector $v_\emptyset$ is the distinguished reference vector, representing the
 453 constant or empty monomial. Thus, the terms in Equation (5) are inner-product moments of the lifted
 454 SDP representation: unary moments such as $\langle v_i, v_\emptyset \rangle$, pairwise moments such as $\langle v_i, v_j \rangle$ and $\langle v_{ij}, v_\emptyset \rangle$,
 455 and higher-order lifted moments such as $\langle v_i, v_{jk} \rangle$.

456 Define the scalar vector moments

$$a_i(V) = -\tau_i \langle v_i, v_\emptyset \rangle,$$

457

$$b_{ij}(V) = \tau_i \tau_j \frac{1}{2} [\langle v_i, v_j \rangle + \langle v_{ij}, v_\emptyset \rangle],$$

458 and

$$c_{ijk}(V) = -\tau_i \tau_j \tau_k \frac{1}{3} [\langle v_i, v_{jk} \rangle + \langle v_j, v_{ik} \rangle + \langle v_k, v_{ij} \rangle].$$

459 Then

$$\Phi_C(V) = \frac{1}{8} (7 + a_i(V) + a_j(V) + a_k(V) - b_{ij}(V) - b_{ik}(V) - b_{jk}(V) + c_{ijk}(V)).$$

460 The clause value is therefore a function of scalar inner-product moments of the SDP vectors. These
461 moments are continuous geometric quantities; they are not Boolean truth values and are not deter-
462 mined by the rounded Boolean pattern alone.

463 To make this explicit, compare two rounded satisfying patterns that share literals i and k , but differ in
464 the middle literal:

$$TFF = (i : T, j : F, k : F), \quad TTF = (i : T, j' : T, k : F).$$

465 In TFF , literal i uniquely satisfies the clause. In TTF , the clause is redundantly satisfied. Using the
466 scalar moment notation above, the corresponding SDP contributions are

$$\Phi_C(TFF; V) = \frac{1}{8} (7 + a_i - a_j - a_k + b_{ij} + b_{ik} - b_{jk} + c_{ijk}),$$

467 and

$$\Phi_{C'}(TTF; V) = \frac{1}{8} (7 + a_i + a_{j'} - a_k - b_{ij'} + b_{ik} + b_{j'k} - c_{ij'k}).$$

468 Subtracting gives

$$\Phi_C(TFF; V) - \Phi_{C'}(TTF; V) = \frac{1}{8} (-a_j - a_{j'} + b_{ij} + b_{ij'} - b_{jk} - b_{j'k} + c_{ijk} + c_{ij'k}).$$

469 The shared terms a_i , a_k , and b_{ik} cancel. The remaining terms depend on the non-shared literals j and
470 j' , and on their SDP moments with i and k . These moments need not be equal, and their comparison
471 is not fixed by the rounded support pattern.

472 Therefore, the rounded fact that TFF is uniquely supported while TTF is redundantly satisfied does
473 not imply either

$$\Phi_C(TFF; V) \geq \Phi_{C'}(TTF; V)$$

474 or

$$\Phi_C(TFF; V) \leq \Phi_{C'}(TTF; V)$$

475 for all relaxed SDP configurations. A universal ordering would require additional assumptions on the
476 SDP moments.

477 The consistency and unit-norm penalties used in Yau et al. [2024] restrict the feasible vector geometry,
478 but they do not make the SDP clause value a function only of the rounded Boolean pattern. Even
479 under strong consistency, the value remains determined by continuous moment-like quantities of the
480 vector solution.

481 Hence the SDP loss may contain information correlated with support, but it does not expose support
482 as a clean local signal in the same way as the logit loss. The support-related effect is mixed with
483 geometry-dependent variation in the vector moments, which acts as noise from the perspective of
484 support detection. This makes the support signal harder for the model to utilize. $\square$

485 B NAE tables

Table 3: SVM separability of support representations for NAE-SAT. For each $n = 1000$ NAE-SAT instance and each valid adjacent support pair $(0, 1)$, $(1, 2)$, and $(2, 3)$, we train a linear SVM using 5-fold cross-validation in the learned representation space. Each cell reports Macro-F1 $\pm$ standard deviation, where Macro-F1 is first averaged over folds and then over instances, and the standard deviation is computed across instances. Higher values indicate clearer geometric organization by support.

c	Model	$(0, 1)$	$(1, 2)$	$(2, 3)$
0.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.46 $\pm$.02	.44 $\pm$.04	–
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.73 $\pm$.04	.59 $\pm$.05	.56 $\pm$.09
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.91$\pm$.03	.76 $\pm$.06	.55 $\pm$.10
1.0	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.45 $\pm$.02	.47 $\pm$.04	.48 $\pm$.07
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.74 $\pm$.02	.59 $\pm$.04	.54 $\pm$.06
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.92$\pm$.02	.82$\pm$.03	.61 $\pm$.07
1.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.48 $\pm$.02	.45 $\pm$.04	.46 $\pm$.06
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.70 $\pm$.02	.59 $\pm$.03	.53 $\pm$.06
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.95$\pm$.01	.87$\pm$.02	.70$\pm$.06
1.8	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.48 $\pm$.02	.46 $\pm$.04	.44 $\pm$.07
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.67 $\pm$.02	.59 $\pm$.03	.53 $\pm$.05
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.94$\pm$.02	.87$\pm$.03	.72$\pm$.06
2.0	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.49 $\pm$.02	.47 $\pm$.03	.46 $\pm$.06
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.64 $\pm$.02	.59 $\pm$.03	.54 $\pm$.05
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.93$\pm$.01	.86$\pm$.02	.73$\pm$.04
2.1	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.49 $\pm$.02	.48 $\pm$.02	.48 $\pm$.05
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.63 $\pm$.02	.60 $\pm$.03	.55 $\pm$.05
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.93$\pm$.01	.85$\pm$.02	.73$\pm$.04
2.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	.51 $\pm$.02	.48 $\pm$.03	.47 $\pm$.04
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	.59 $\pm$.02	.58 $\pm$.03	.54 $\pm$.04
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	.91$\pm$.01	.84$\pm$.02	.73$\pm$.04

Table 4: SAT and NAE results by clause density for $n = 1000$, over 100 instances per density. Each cell reports SAT found | NAE found | SAT approximation | NAE approximation.

c	Model	SAT found	NAE found	SAT approx.	NAE approx.
0.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.59	0.00	0.99	0.82
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.66
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.78	0.21	1.00	1.00
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	0.83	0.09	0.99	0.99
1.0	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.95
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.77
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	1.00	0.81	1.00	1.00
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	1.00	0.98	1.00	1.00
1.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.26	0.00	0.99	0.92
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.82
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.97	0.11	1.00	1.00
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
1.8	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.99	0.92
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.83
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.07	0.00	0.99	0.99
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	0.86	0.23	0.99	0.99
2.0	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.99	0.92
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.84
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.01	0.00	0.99	0.99
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	0.07	0.00	0.99	0.99
2.1	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.99	0.92
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.84
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.98	0.98
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	0.01	0.00	0.99	0.99
2.5	OPTGNN-IR-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.99	0.92
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE	1.00	0.00	1.00	0.85
	OPTGNN-LOGIT-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.98	0.98
	OPTGNN-CLAUSE-NAE	0.00	0.00	0.98	0.98

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